

CS360 Introduction to Database

Secondary Storage Management

Min-Soo Kim

School of Computing, KAIST

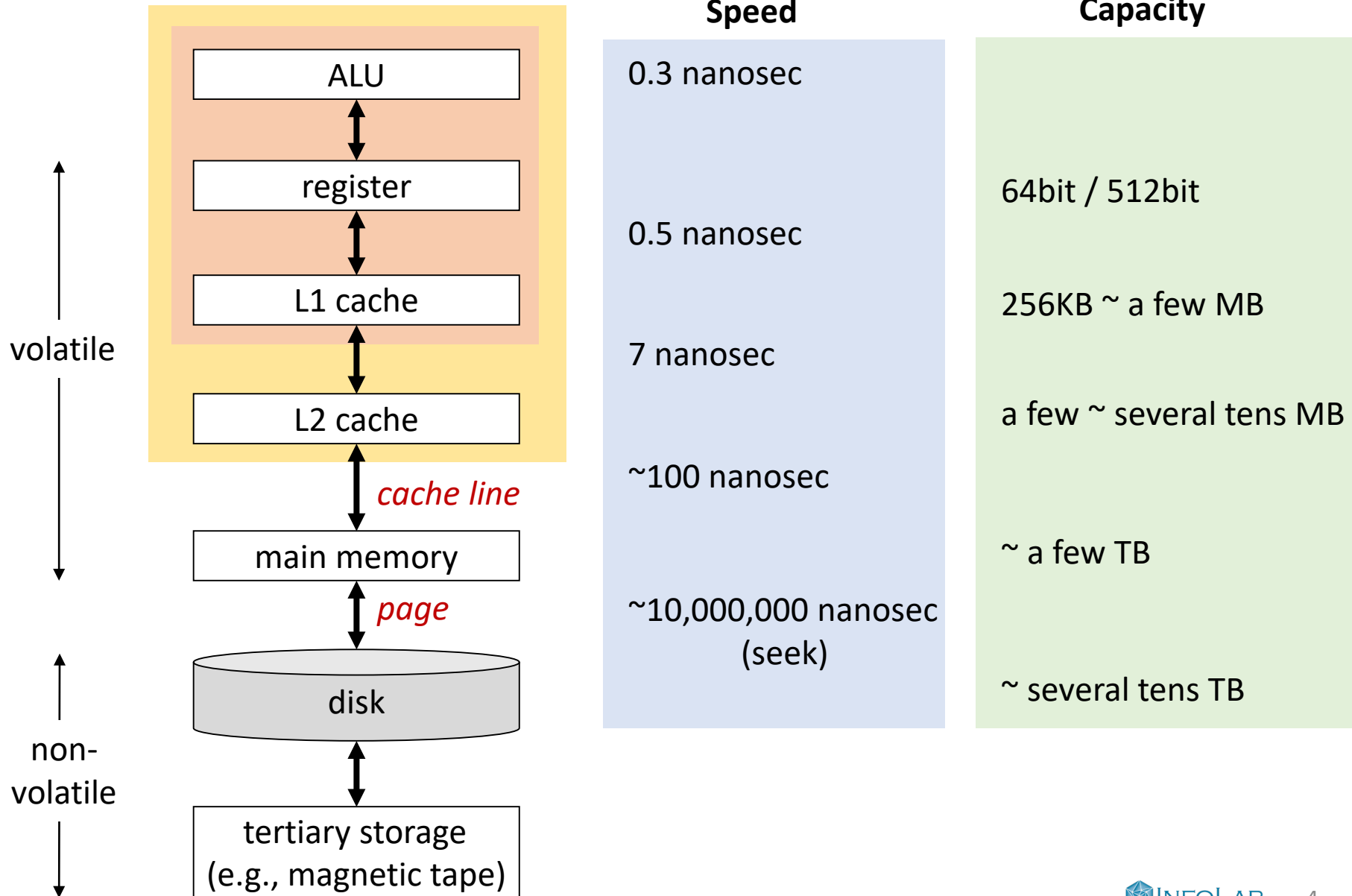
Class schedule

- Chapter 13. Second storage management
 - Chapter 14. Index structures
 - Chapter 15. Query execution
 - Chapter 16. Query optimization
- } Scope of the final exam
-
- Chapter 8. Views and indexes
 - Chapter 10. On-line analytic processing

Outline

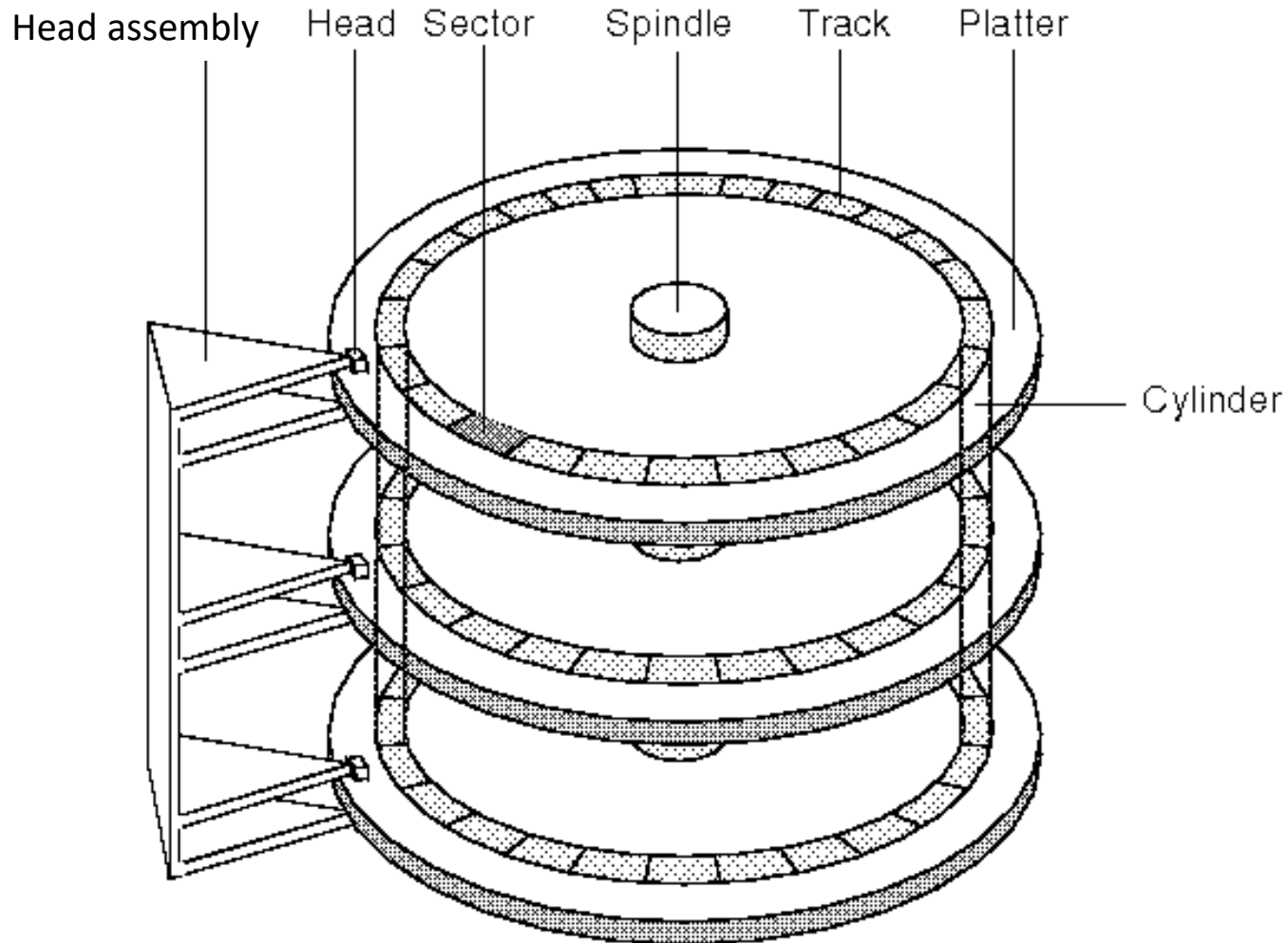
- Memory hierarchy
- Disk access time
- Double buffering technique
- RAID (Redundant Array of Independent Disks)
- Database address space
- Pointer swizzling
- Record formats
- Record modification

Memory hierarchy

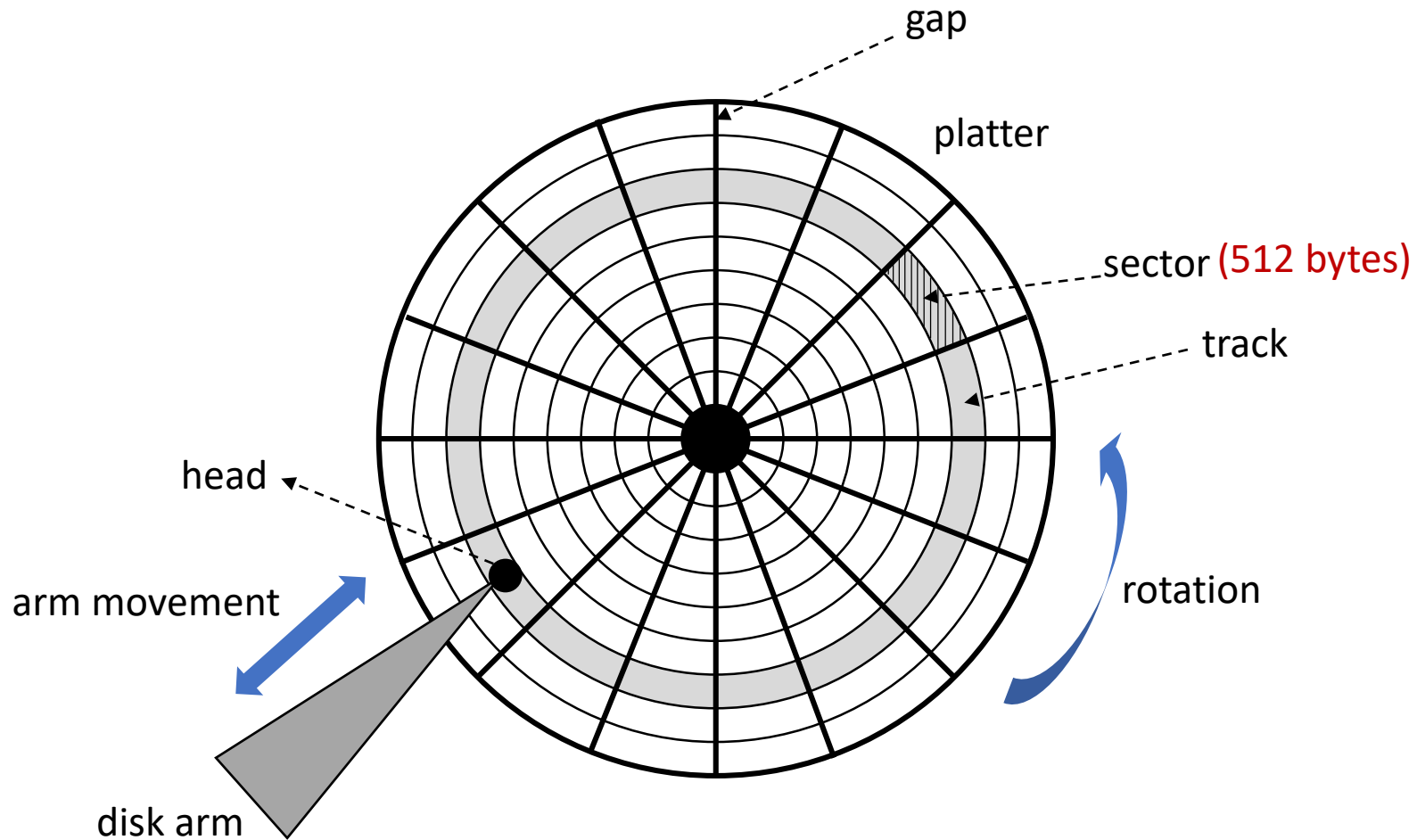


Disks

7200 RPM (Revolutions Per Minute)

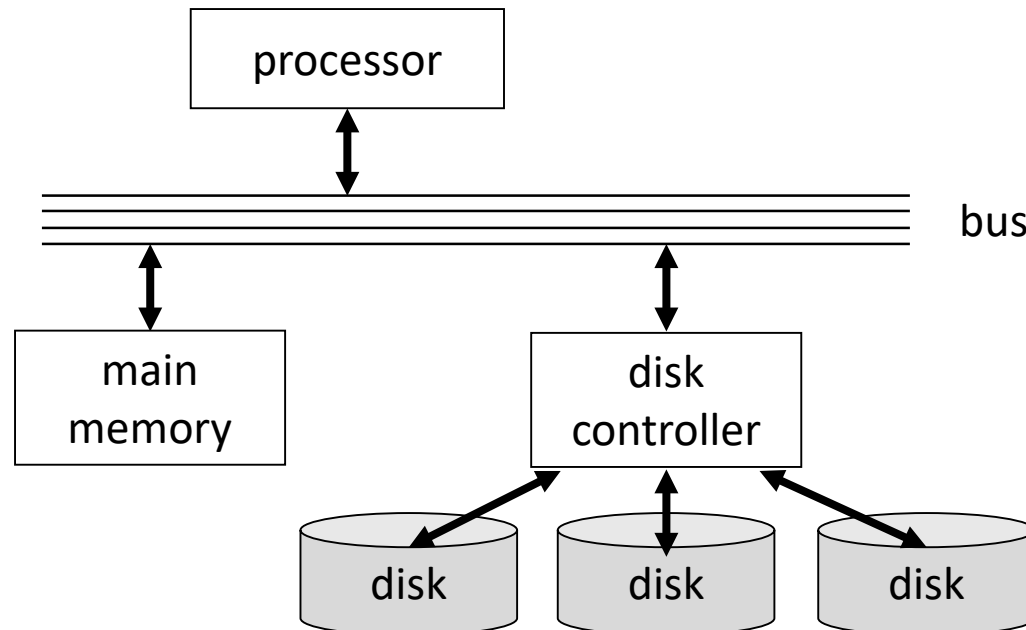


Disks



Disk controller

- Control the actuator to position the heads at a track
- Select a sector to read in the track
- Transfer bits between the sector and main memory
- Buffer the track in the local memory of disk controller



Disk access time

- Seek time

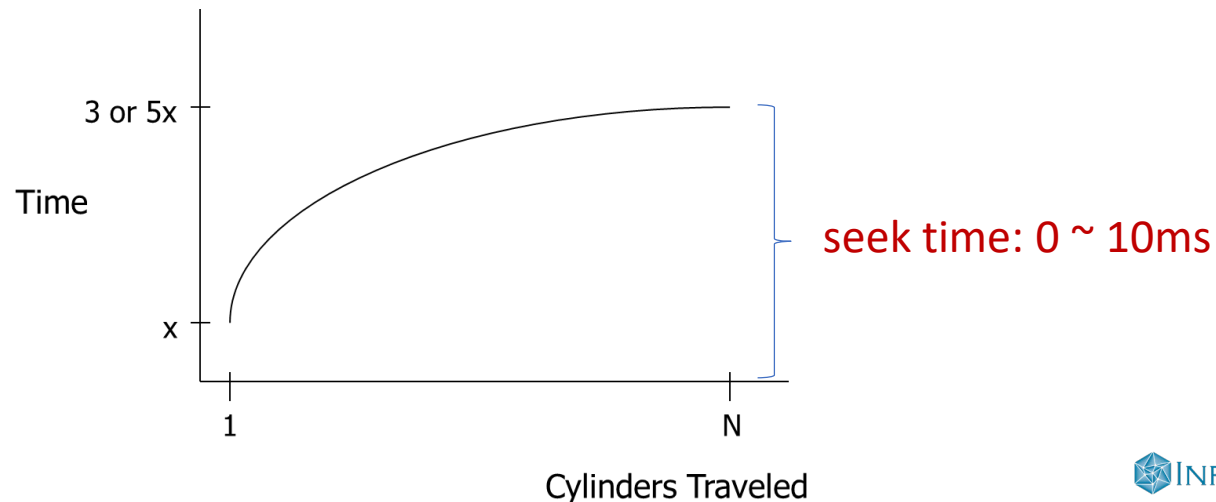
- positioning the head at the track on which the block is located

- Rotational latency

- waiting while the first sector of the block moves under the head (4.17 ms on average at 7200 RPM)

- Transfer time

- all the sectors' passing under the head while the disk controller reads (or writes) data in the sectors



Transfer rate: t

- Transfer time = $\frac{\text{size of blocks}}{t}$
- HDD (single): up to 200 MByte/sec
 - transfer time for 4K block : 0.02 ms
- SSD (single): up to 5~6GByte/sec
 - limited by the bandwidth of interface
 - e.g., SATA3: 6Gbit/sec
 - e.g., PCIe 3.0 x4: 4GByte/sec
 - e.g., PCIe 3.0 x8: 8GByte/sec
 - e.g., PCIe 4.0 x4: 8GByte/sec



Rule of thumb

- Random I/O : **expensive**
- Sequential I/O : **much less** than random I/O
- e.g., reading 1GB data, block size: 4KB (250,000 blocks),
seek time: 4ms, rotational latency: 4ms,
transfer rate: 200MB/sec (0.02ms / block)
 - random I/O : $250,000 \times (4 + 4 + 0.02) = 2,005,000 \text{ ms} = \mathbf{2005 \text{ sec}}$
 - sequential I/O : $4 + 4 + 250,000 \times 0.02 = 5008 \text{ ms} = \mathbf{5 \text{ sec}}$
- Similar for SSD

Single buffering technique

- Reading data from disk and processing data in buffer
- Two approaches
 - reading and processing in separate steps
 - reading and processing in an intertwined manner
- Single buffering
 - read B1 → buffer
 - process data in buffer
 - read B2 → buffer
 - process data in buffer
 - ...

} sequential

Double buffering technique

- Notation

- $R(\cdot)$: time to read one block to buffer
- $P(\cdot)$: time to process one block in buffer
- n : # of blocks

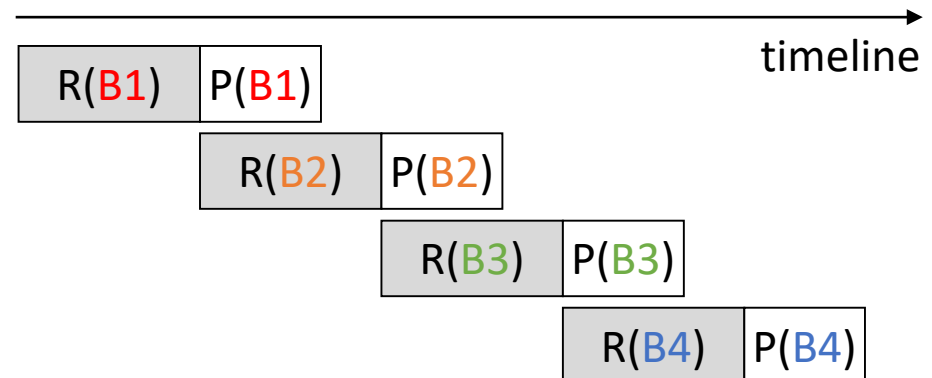
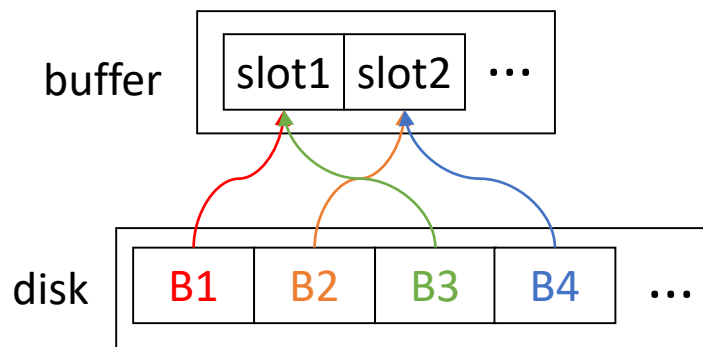
- Elapsed times

- $R(\cdot) > P(\cdot)$: $P(\cdot) + nR(\cdot)$

data-intensive

- $R(\cdot) < P(\cdot)$: $R(\cdot) + nP(\cdot)$

compute-intensive

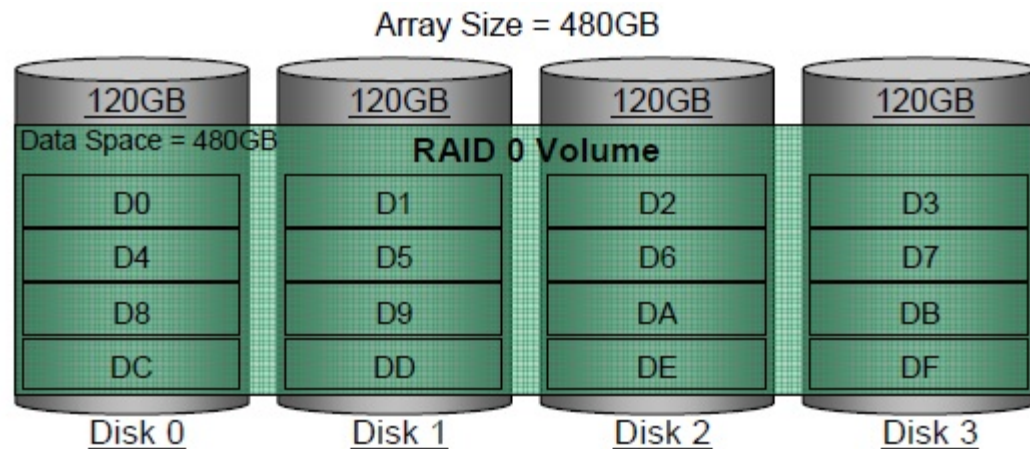


RAID 0 vs. RAID 1

RAID 0

Fast (>x2)

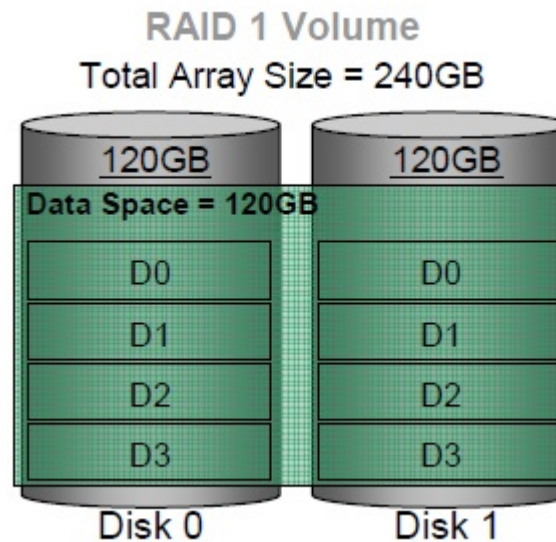
But, not fault-tolerant
(min. # disks = 2)



RAID 1

Fault-tolerant

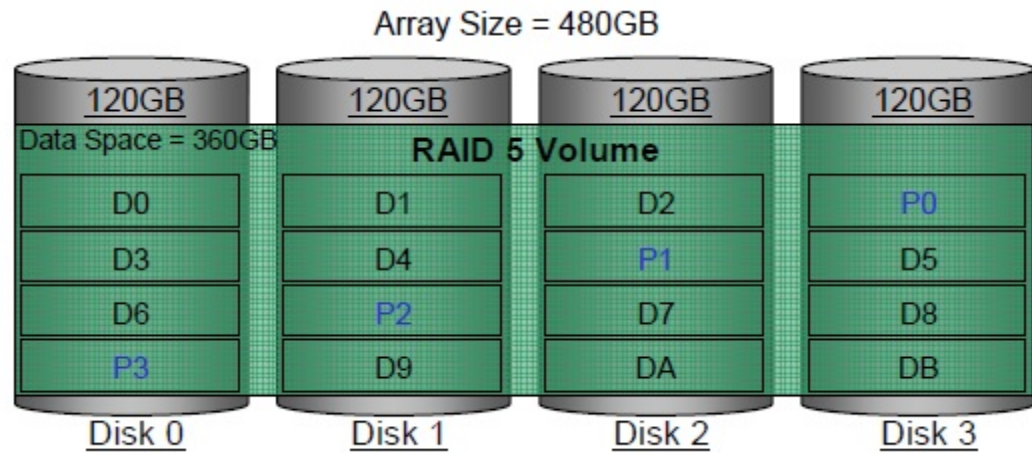
But, large disk space (x2)
(min. # disks = 2)



RAID 5 vs. RAID 10

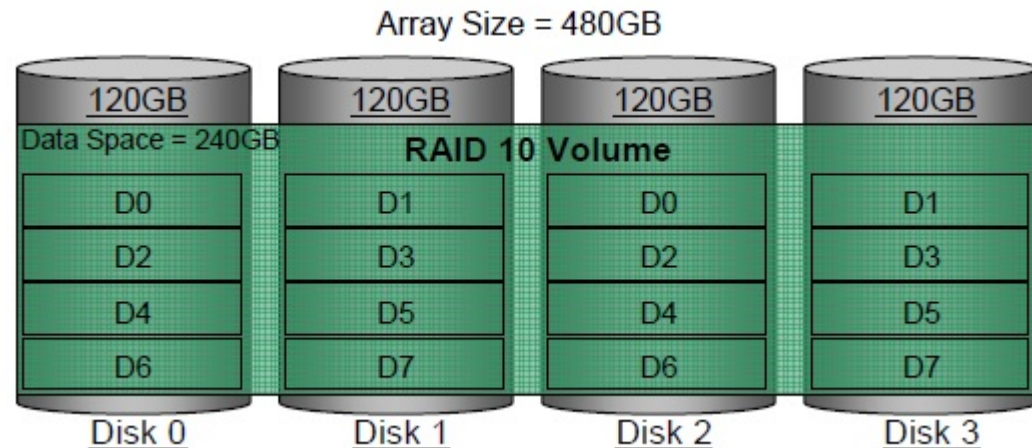
RAID 5

All-round
(min. # disks = 3)



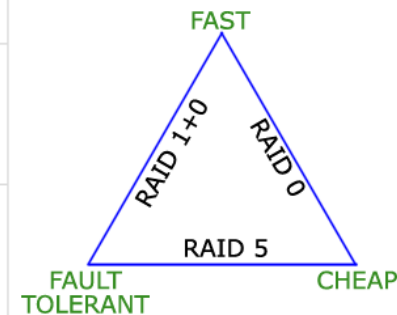
RAID 10

Combination of
RAID 1 + RAID 0
(min. # disks = 4)



Comparison of Common RAID types

RAID	Min Disks	Storage Efficiency %	Cost	Read Performance	Write Performance	Write* Penalty	Protection
0	2	100	Low	Good for both random and sequential reads	Excellent	1	No Protection
1	2	50	High	Better than a single disk	Good - Slower than a single disk because every write must be committed to all disks	2	Mirror Protection
5	3	67 - 97%	Moderate - Low	Good for random and sequential reads	Fair for random and sequential writes	4	Parity protection for single disk failure
6	3	33 - 94%	Extremely High - Low	Good for random and sequential reads	Poor to fair for random writes and fair for sequential writes	6	Parity protection for two disk failures
10	4	50	High	Good	Good	2	Mirror Protection
50	6	67 - 94%	Moderate-High	Better	Moderate for random and sequential writes	4	Parity protection for single disk failure
60	6	33 - 88%	Extremely High - Moderate	Better	Fair for random and sequential writes	6	Parity protection for two disk failures



Arranging data on disk

- Tuple or object is represented by a **record**
- Record consists of consecutive bytes in disk block (in row-oriented layout)
- Records are **eventually manipulated in main memory**
 - although they are kept in secondary storage
 - necessary to lay out the records so it **can be moved to main memory** and **accessed efficiently there**

Structure of a record

- Record begins with header
 - **header**: a fixed-length information about the record itself
- Header contains
 - **pointer to the schema** for the data stored in the record
 - **length of the record**
 - help us skip over records without consulting the schema
 - **timestamps** indicating the time the record was last modified, or last read
 - useful for implementing database transactions
 - **pointers to the fields** of the record
 - can substitute for schema information

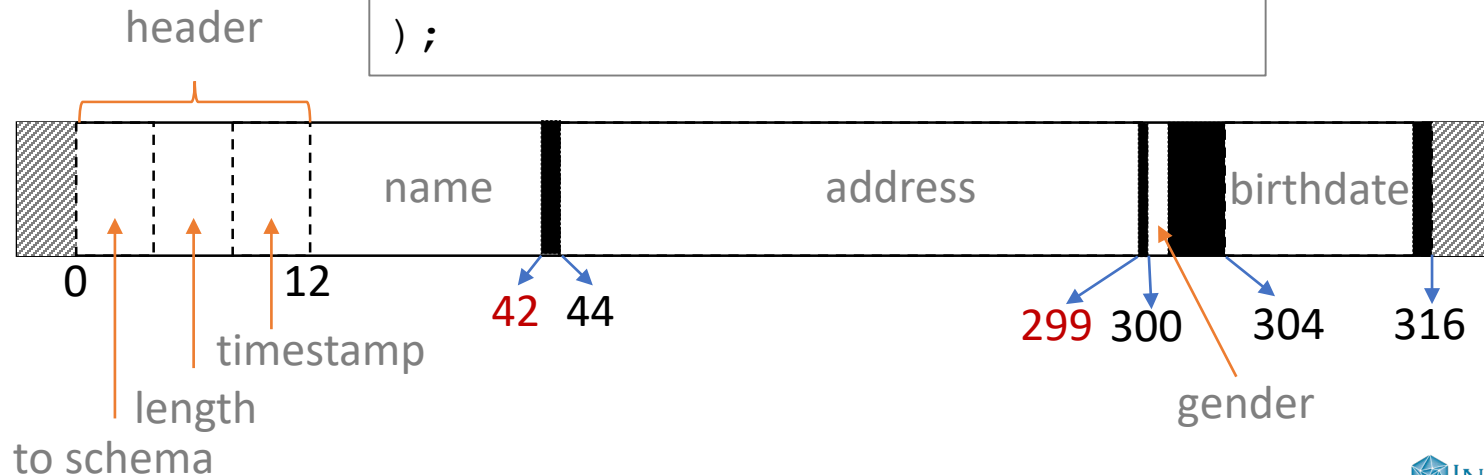
Example of a **fixed-length** record

- Assumptions

- all fields must start at a byte that is a multiple of four (**memory alignment**)
- DATE type is a 10-byte string

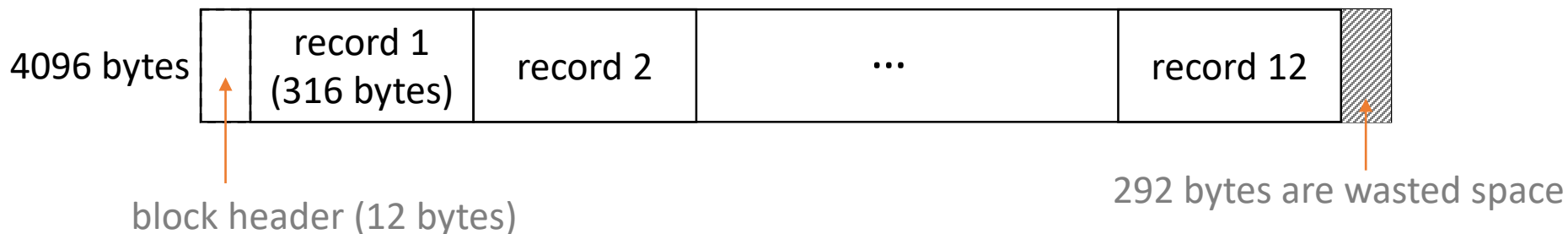
```
CREATE TABLE MovieStar (  
    name CHAR(30) PRIMARY KEY,  
    address VARCHAR(255),  
    gender CHAR(1),  
    birthdate DATE → 10 bytes  
);
```

not 296 bytes long!
316 bytes long



Packing fixed-length records into blocks

- Records of a relation are stored in blocks of the disk
- Block header holds
 - **links** to one or more other blocks (part of a network of blocks)
 - information about the **role** of this block in the network
 - information about which **relation** this block belongs to
 - a block usually holds tuples from one relation
 - **directory** giving the offset of each record in the block
 - **timestamp(s)**: time of the last modification and/or access



Representing block and record addresses

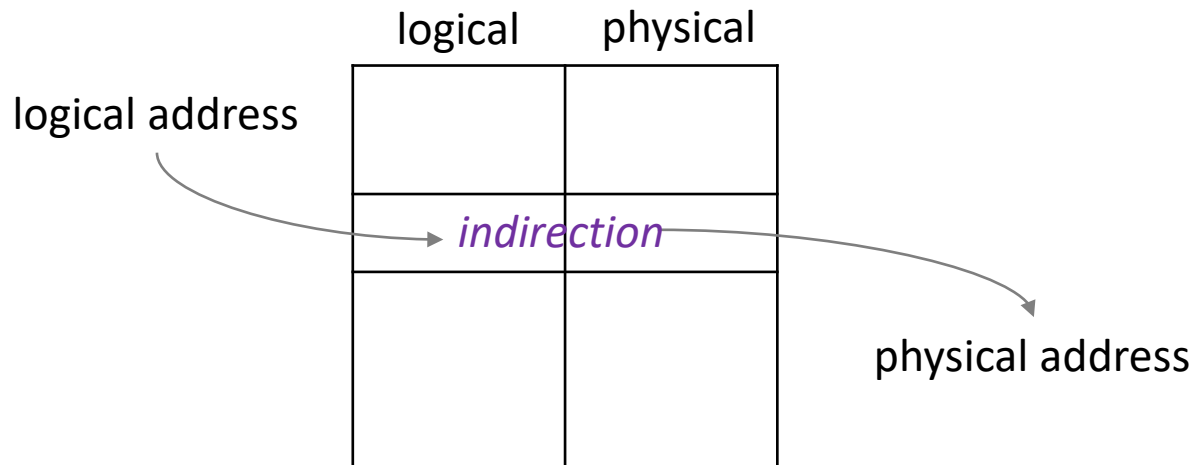
- In main memory
 - address of a block: virtual-memory address of its first byte
 - address of a record: virtual-memory address of its first byte
- In secondary storage
 - block is NOT part of the application's virtual-memory address space
 - address of a block: device ID for the disk, cylinder number, track, ...
 - address of a record: block address + offset of its first byte within the block

Database address space

- All data objects in DBMS lives in this address space
 - data objects: blocks, records, ..
- Physical addresses
 - **host** to which the storage is attached
 - identifier for the **disk** on which the block is located
 - number of the **cylinder**
 - number of the **track** within the cylinder
 - number of the **block** within the track
 - **offset** of the beginning of the record within the block

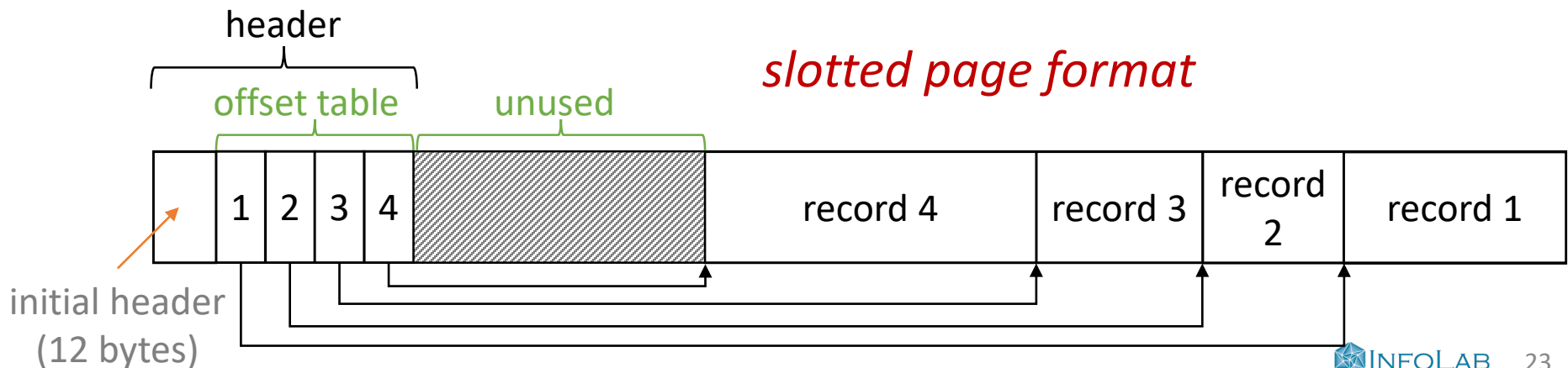
Logical addresses

- Each block or record has a logical address
 - arbitrary string of bytes of some fixed length
- (Global) Map table
 - stored on disk in a known location
 - translate logical to physical addresses
 - logical address is shorter than physical address



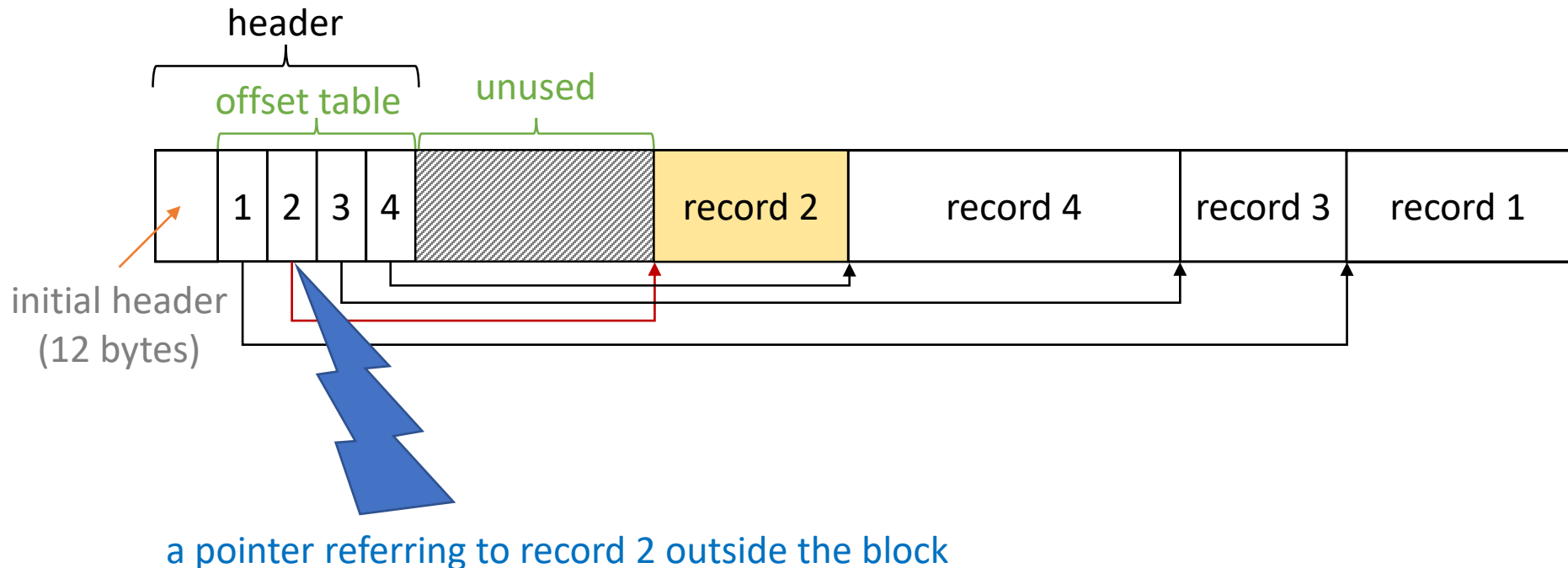
Logical and structured addresses

- Flexibility of indirection using the global map table
 - a record can be referenced by a lot of other records
 - it is often to move records within a block or from block to block
 - all **pointers** to the record refer the map table
 - just change the table entry when moving or deleting the record
- Combination of logical and physical addresses
 - use a physical address for the block
 - keep an offset table for the records in each block

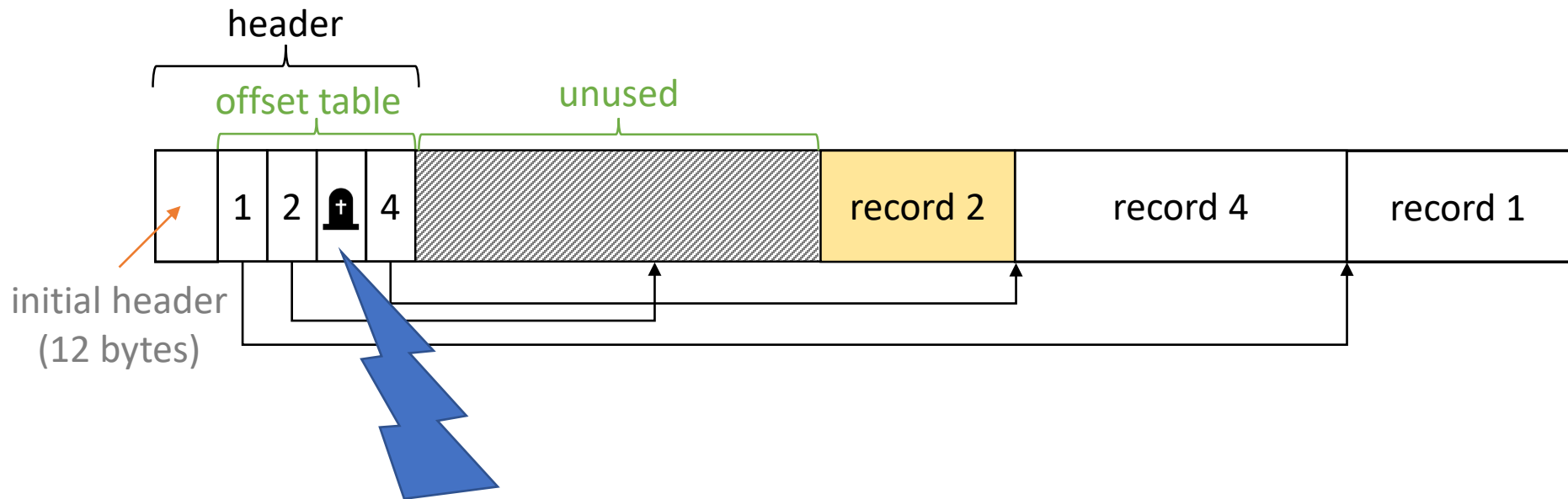


Advantages of **indirection within the block**

- We can move the record around within the block
 - all we have to do is change the record's entry in the offset table
 - pointers to the record will still be able to find it



- We can even allow the record to move to another block
 - if the offset table entries are large enough to hold a **forwarding address** for the record, giving its new location
- We can handle the deletion of the record easily
 - leave a **tombstone** in the record's entry in the offset table
 - solve a kind of **dangling pointer problem**



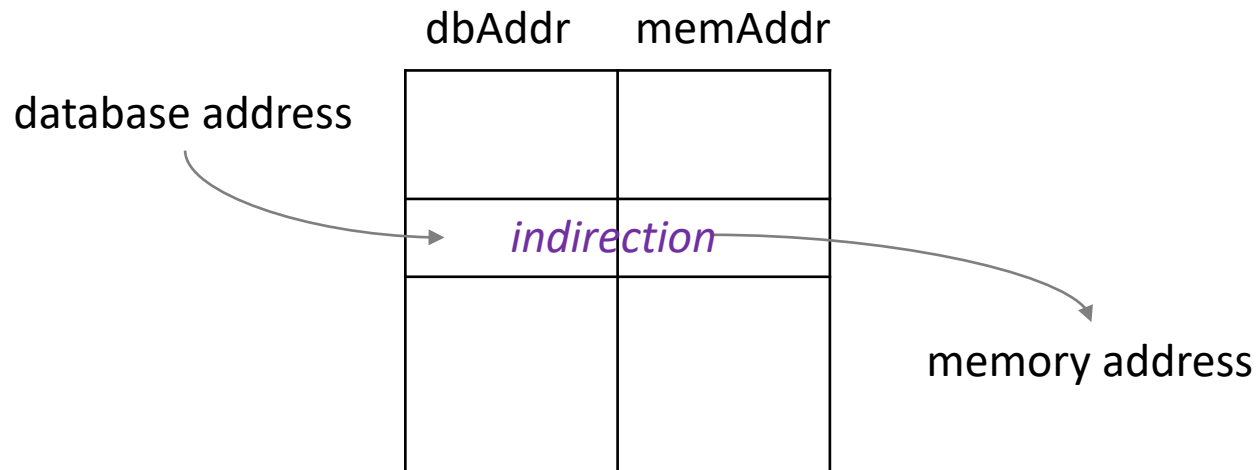
a pointer referring to record 3 leads to the tombstone

Management of pointers

- Database address
 - both physical address and logical address are database address
 - they are not memory address in current virtual memory
 - we must use database address in secondary storage
- Memory address
 - we can refer to the data item (e.g., block, record, object) by either its **database address** or its **memory address**
 - we need a **translation table** if we use database address
 - memory address is much more efficient (in single instruction)

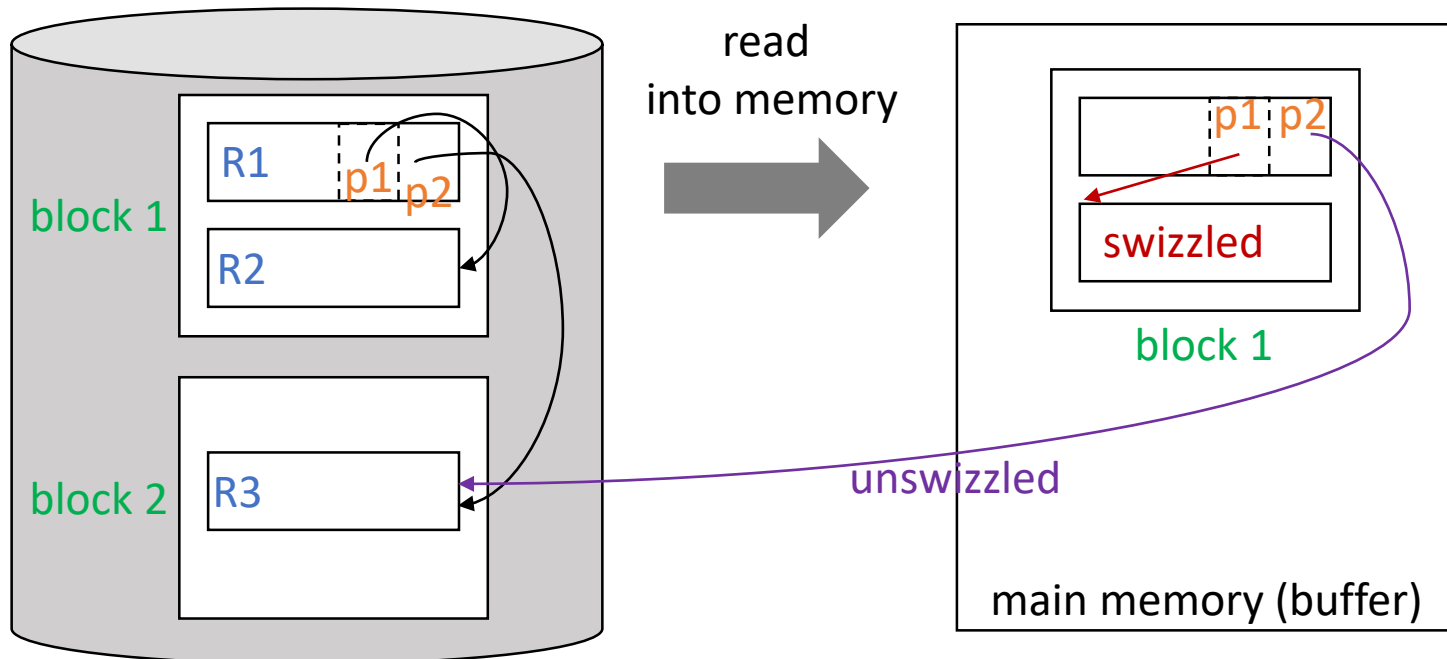
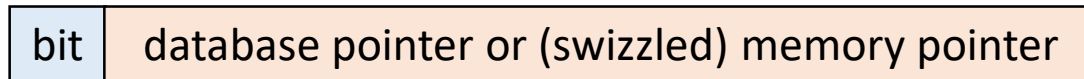
Translation table

- Translate from database address to memory address
 - only the items currently in virtual memory have entries in the translation table
 - c.f., all addressable items in the database have entries in the map table
 - memory addresses in the translation table are for copies of the corresponding object in memory
 - time consuming



Pointer swizzling

- Techniques for avoiding the cost of translating repeatedly from DB address to Mem address
 - we “swizzle” the pointers within the block when moving a block from secondary storage to main memory



Automatic swizzling

- As soon as a block is brought into memory
 - locate all its **pointers** and **addresses**
 - **pointers** from records in the block to elsewhere
 - **address** of the block itself
 - **addresses** of the records in the block
 - enter them into the translation table (if they are not there)
- Swizzling pointers
 - case 1: finding the memory address for a pointer in the table
 - replacing the database address by the memory address
 - set the swizzled bit to true
 - case 2: finding a pointer is still unswizzled and not in the table
 - load the corresponding block into memory buffer
 - swizzle the pointer

p1
p2

d(B1)	m(B1)
d(R1)	m(R1)
d(R2)	m(R2)
d(R3)	

swizzling

Swizzling on demand

- As soon as a block is brought into memory
 - locate all its addresses and enter them into the translation table (if they are not there)
 - but, leave all its pointers unswizzled
- Comparison with automatic swizzling
 - **automatic swizzling**: all the pointers are swizzled quickly and efficiently when the block is loaded into memory
 - **on-demand swizzling**: not waste the time spent for swizzling the pointers that won't be used (followed) eventually
- c.f., **no swizzling**
 - need the translation table
 - offer advantage that the records cannot be **pinned** in memory

Returning blocks to disk

- When a block is moved from memory back to disk
 - any pointers within the block must be **unswizzled**
 - memory addresses of the pointers must be replaced by the corresponding database addresses
- If we think of the translation table as a relation

```
SELECT memAddr  
FROM TranslationTable  
WHERE dbAddr = x;
```

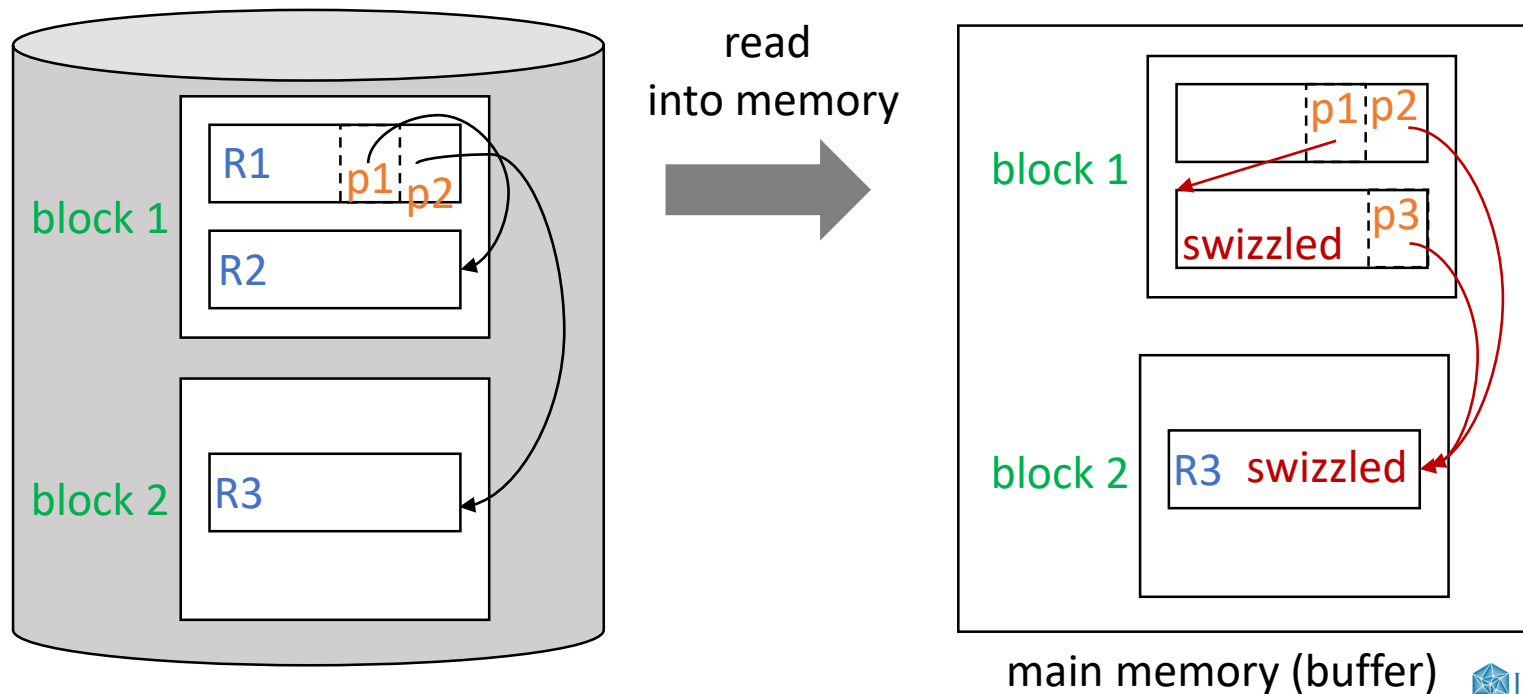
for swizzling

```
SELECT dbAddr  
FROM TranslationTable  
WHERE memAddr = y;
```

for unswizzling

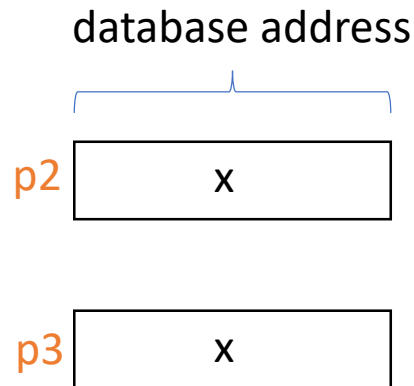
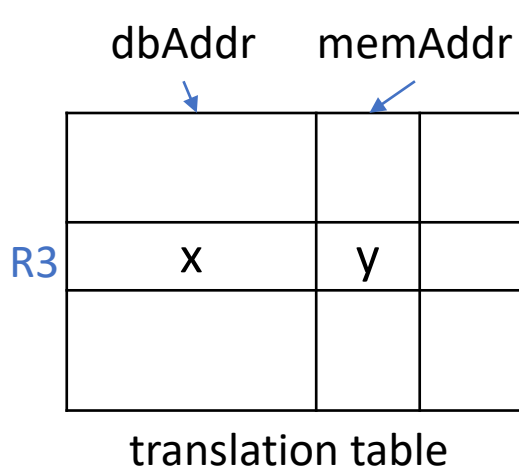
Pinned records and blocks (1)

- Pinned block: **cannot be written back to disk safely**
 - e.g., B_1 has a swizzled pointer to data item in B_2 ,
moving B_2 back to disk and reusing its main memory buffer makes the pointer **dangling** (B_2 is therefore pinned)



Pinned records and blocks (2)

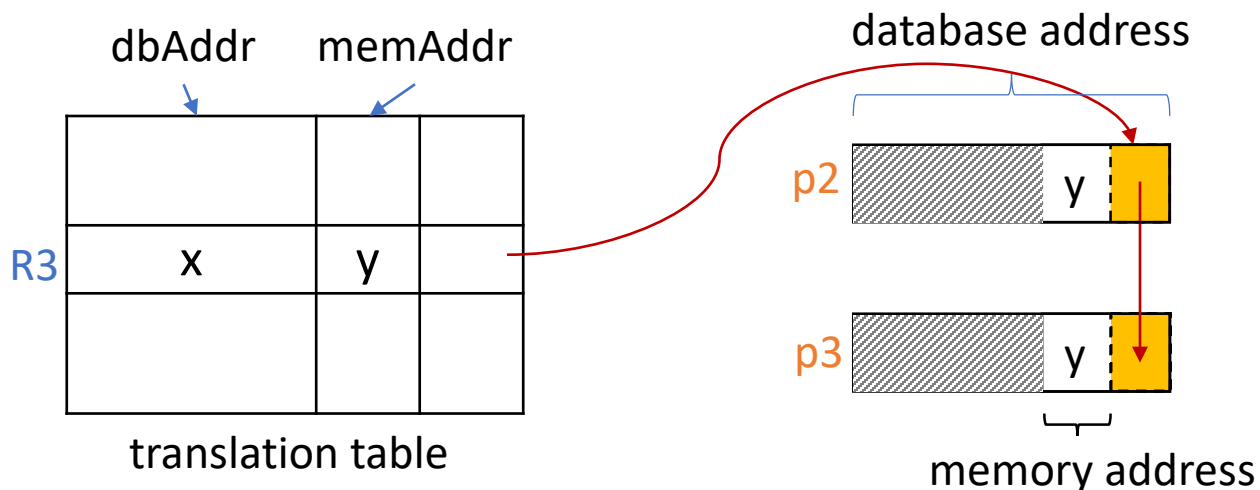
- To write the block back to disk
 - unswizzle any pointers in the block
 - unpin the block by unswizzling any pointers to it (e.g., p2)
- To unpin the block, use a linked list
 - memory address is significantly shorter than database address



before p2 and p3 are swizzled

Pinned records and blocks (2)

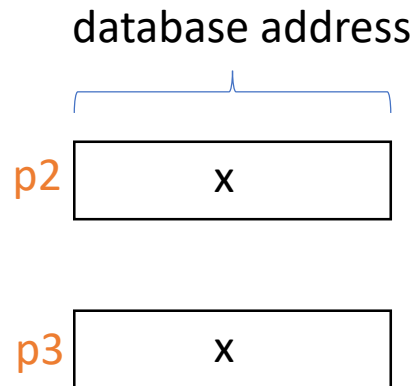
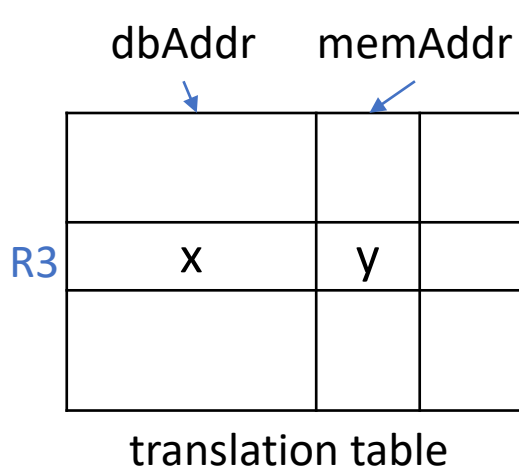
- To write the block back to disk
 - unswizzle any pointers in the block
 - unpin the block by unswizzling any pointers to it (e.g., p2)
- To unpin the block, use a linked list
 - memory address is significantly shorter than database address



after p2 and p3 are swizzled

Pinned records and blocks (2)

- To write the block back to disk
 - **unswizzle** any pointers in the block
 - **unpin** the block by unswizzling any pointers to it (e.g., p2)
- To unpin the block, use a linked list
 - **memory address is significantly shorter than database address**



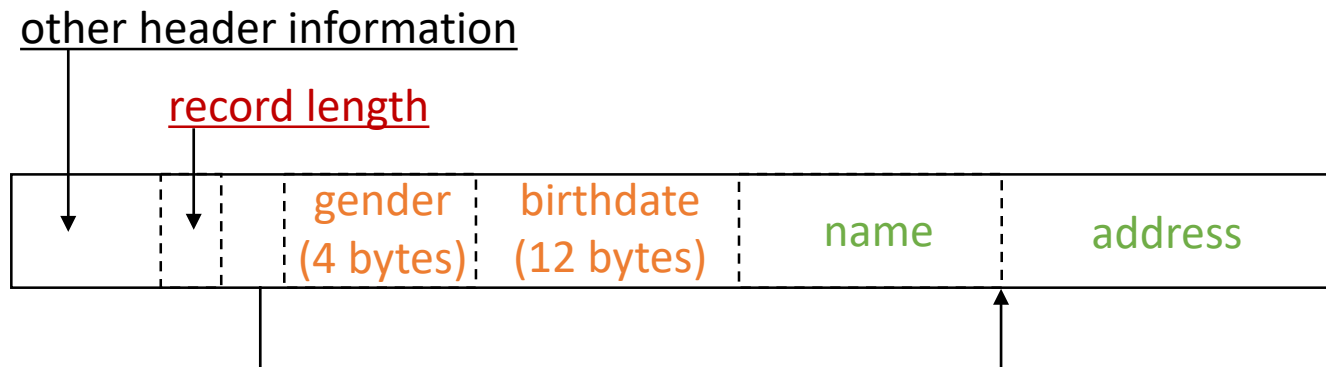
after p2 and p3 are **unswizzled**

Variable-length data and records

- Data items whose size varies (e.g., address)
- Repeating fields
 - we need to store references to as many objects as are related to the given object, if there is M:N relationship
- Variable-format records
 - sometimes we do not know in advance what the fields of a record will be (e.g., XML, JSON)
- Enormous fields
 - sometimes attribute values are very large (e.g., audio, image, video)

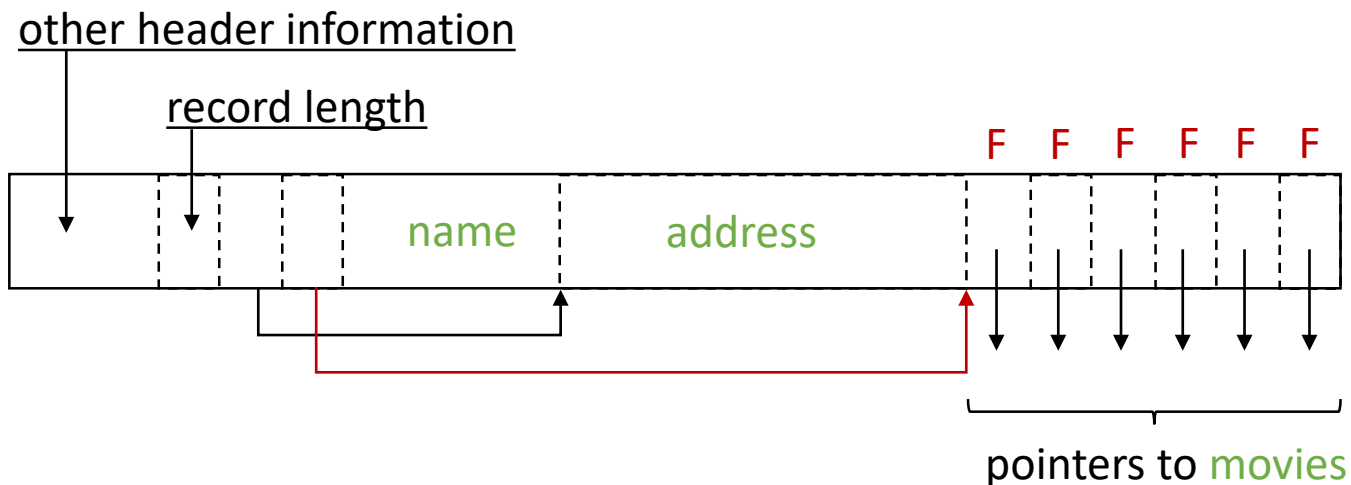
Records with variable-length fields

- Put all fixed-length fields ahead of the variable-length fields
- Record header
 - length of the record
 - pointers to the beginnings of all the variable-length fields other than the first one



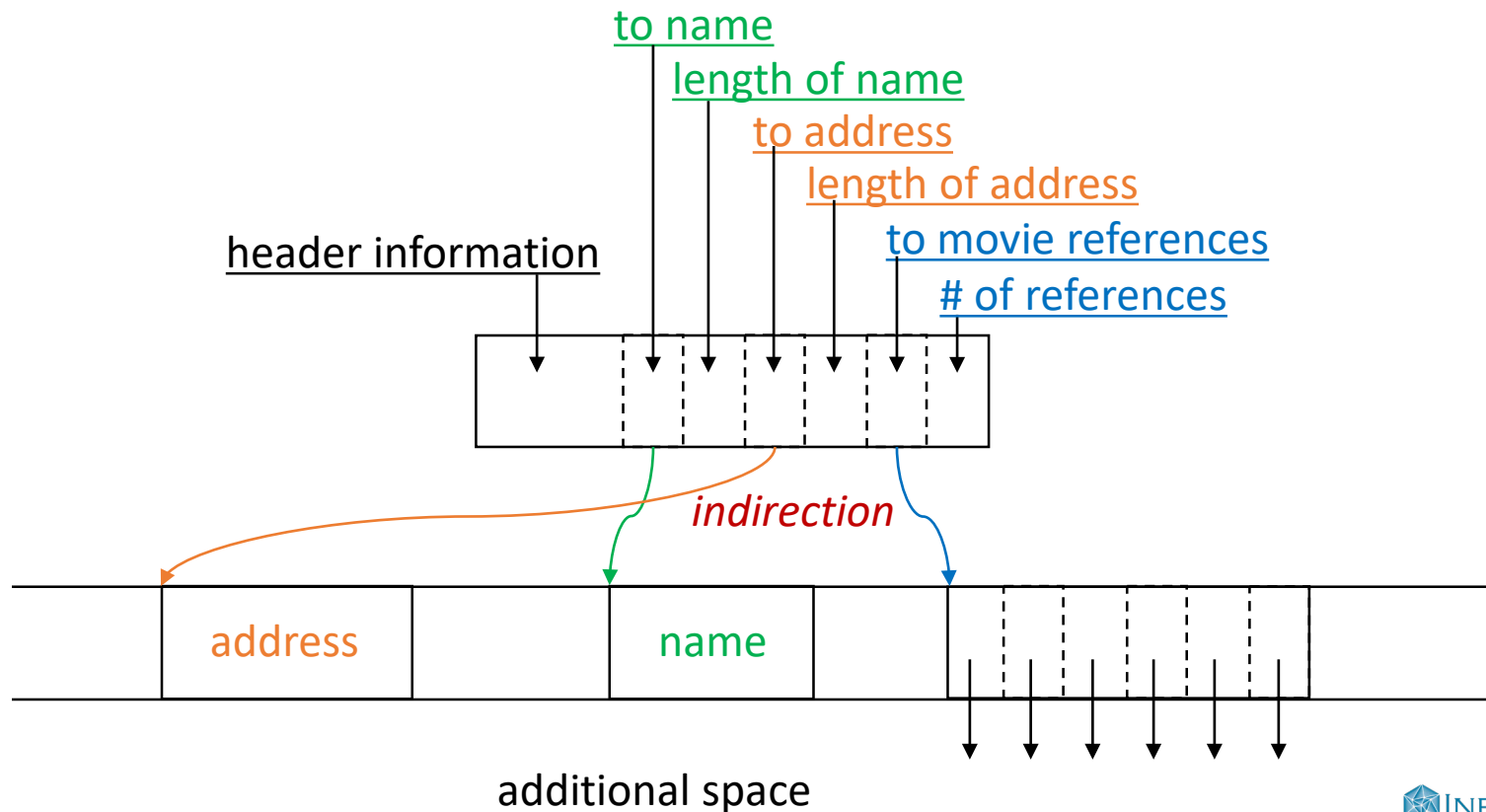
Records with repeating fields

- Assumption
 - a record contains a variable number of occurrences of a field **F**
 - field itself is of fixed length (L: number of bytes for a field)



Records with repeating fields (alternative)

- Put the variable-length portion on a separate block
 - records can be searched or moved more efficiently
 - but, the number of disk I/O's increases



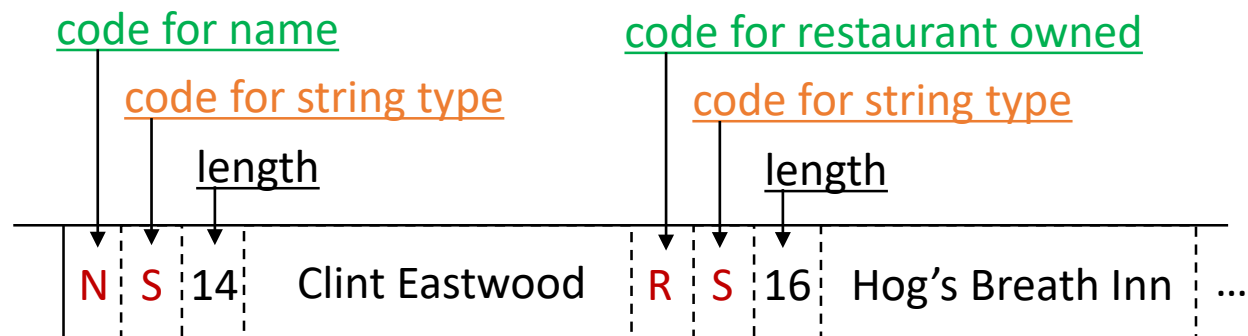
Variable-format records

- e.g., XML, medical records
- Sequence of tagged fields
 - value of the field
 - information about the role of the field
 - attribute or field name
 - type of the field
 - length of the field

```
<Star>
  <name> Clint Eastwood
</name>
  <restaurant owned>
    Hog's Breath Inn
  </restaurant owned>
</Star>
```

code table

code	value
N	"name"
R	"restaurant owned"
S	string type



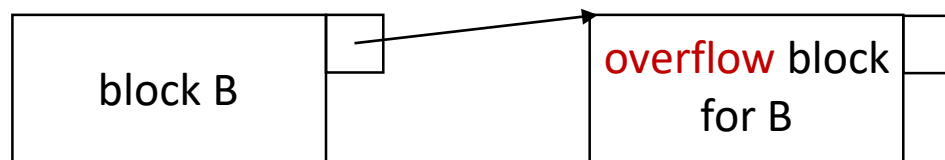
movie stars may have additional attributes such as restaurants owned

Binary, Large OBjects (BLOBs)

- Storage of BLOBs
 - stored on a sequence of blocks (**spanned record**)
 - it is preferred that blocks are allocated consecutively on disk
 - it is necessary to **stripe** BLOBs across disks for faster retrieval
- Retrieval of BLOBs (in client-server environment)
 - pass only the small fields of the record
 - allow the client to request blocks of the BLOB one at a time
 - client should be able to **request interior portions of the BLOB** without having to receive the entire BLOB
 - it requires a suitable index structure (e.g., **an index by seconds on a movie BLOB**)

Record modification - insertion

- Problem: when tuples must be kept in some fixed order
- Case 1: there is room in the block → slotted page format
- Case 2: there is no room in the block for the new record
 - find space on a nearby block
 - look at the following block in the sorted order
 - slide the records around on both blocks
 - create an overflow block
 - each block B has in its header a place for a pointer to an overflow block
 - additional records in the overflow blocks theoretically belong in B



Record modification - deletion

- Reclaiming the space after deleting a record
 - slide records
 - maintain an **available-space list** (like **garbage collection**)
 - put the list head in the block header
 - each available region holds the link to the next region
- Not able to reclaim due to pointers to the delete record
 - place a **tombstone** in place of the deleted record
 - tombstone is **permanent; must exist until the entire DB is reconstructed**
 - tombstone could be a null pointer
 - in the **offset table** if we use the **slotted page format**
 - in the **physical address entry** if we use the **map table**

Thank you

Q & A